

MATH211

Discrete Mathematics

Set Theory



Agenda

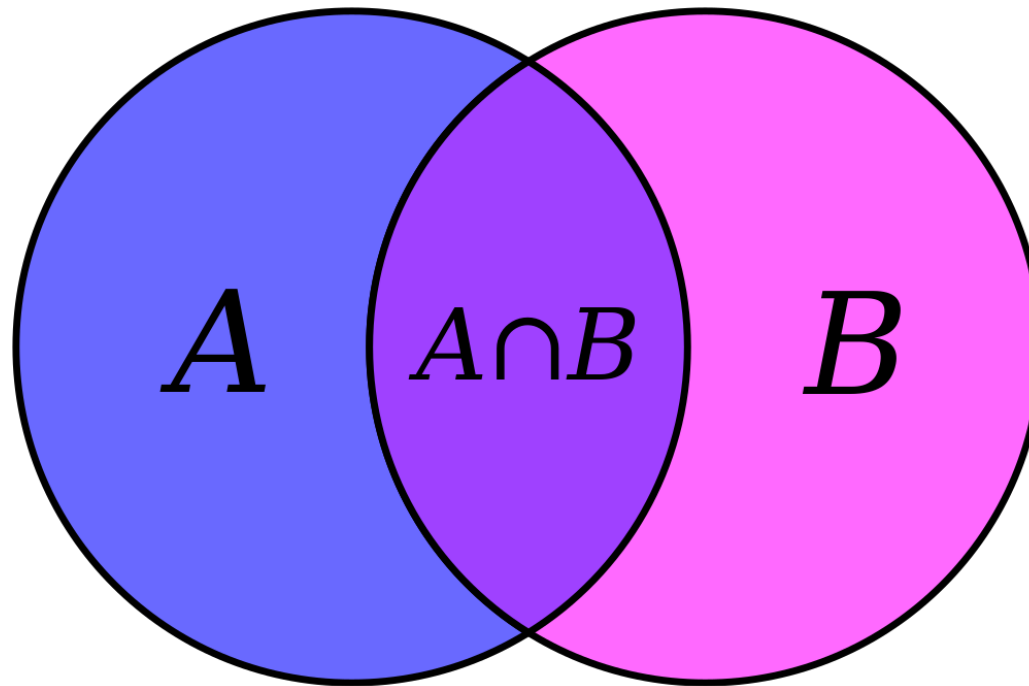
2.1 Sets

2.2 Set Operations

Set builder notation, subset, Cartesian product, power set, union, intersection, complements, set identities

Discrete Mathematics and Its Applications

Kenneth H. Rosen



2.1. Sets

Introduction to Set Theory

- ▶ A *set* is a structure, representing an unordered collection (group, plurality) of zero or more distinct (different) objects.
 - ▶ The students in this class
 - ▶ All the video games on your phone, etc.
- ▶ The objects in a set are called the elements, members, or items of the set.

Introduction to Set Theory

$$S = \{1, 2, 3\}$$

- ▶ For sets, we'll use variables ***S***, ***T***, ***U***, ...
- ▶ We can denote a set ***S*** in writing by *listing* all of its elements in curly braces:
 - ▶ $\{1, 2, 3\}$ is the set of whatever 3 objects are denoted by 1, 2, 3.
- ▶ We write $1 \in S$ to denote that 1 is an element/member of the set *S*.
- ▶ The notation $5 \notin S$ denotes that 5 is not an element/member of the set *S*.

Introduction to Set Theory

The set S of odd positive integers less than 10 can be expressed by
 $S = \{1, 3, 5, 7, 9\}$.

The set S of positive integers less than 100 can be expressed by
 $S = \{1, 2, 3, \dots, 99\}$.

Basic properties of sets

- ▶ Sets are inherently *unordered*:
 - ▶ No matter what objects a , b , and c denote,
 $\{a, b, c\} = \{a, c, b\} = \{b, a, c\} =$
 $\{b, c, a\} = \{c, a, b\} = \{c, b, a\}$
- ▶ All elements are *distinct* (unequal); multiple listings make no difference!
 - ▶ $\{a, b, c\} = \{a, a, b, a, b, c, c, c, c\}$.
 - ▶ This set contains at most 3 elements!

Basic notations for sets

- ▶ Another way to describe a set is to use **set builder** notation.
- ▶ The set $S = \{1, 2, 3, 4\} = \{x \mid x \text{ is an integer where } x > 0 \text{ and } x < 5\}$
- ▶ The set **O** of odd positive integers less than 10 can be expressed by

$$O = \{1, 3, 5, 7, 9\}$$

$$O = \{x \mid x \text{ is an odd positive integer less than } 10\},$$

$$O = \{x \in \mathbf{Z}^+ \mid x \text{ is odd and } x < 10\}.$$

Basic notations for sets

$\mathbf{N} = \{0, 1, 2, 3, \dots\}$, the set of all **natural numbers**

$\mathbf{Z} = \{\dots, -2, -1, 0, 1, 2, \dots\}$, the set of all **integers**

$\mathbf{Z}^+ = \{1, 2, 3, \dots\}$, the set of all **positive integers**

$\mathbf{Q} = \{p/q \mid p \in \mathbf{Z}, q \in \mathbf{Z}, \text{ and } q \neq 0\}$,

the set of all **rational numbers**

$\mathbf{R}$, the set of all **real numbers**

$\mathbf{R}^+$, the set of all **positive real numbers**

$\mathbf{C}$, the set of all **complex numbers**.

Empty Set

- ▶ There is a special (unique) set that has no elements/members. This set is called **the empty set**, or **null set**, and is denoted by $\emptyset$.
- ▶ The empty set can also be denoted by, $\emptyset = \{ \} = \{x \mid \text{False}\}$
- ▶ No matter the domain of discourse, we have the axiom $\neg \exists x \text{ such that } x \in \emptyset$

Definition of Set Equality

- ▶ Two sets are declared to be *equal* if and only if they contain exactly the same elements.
- ▶ In particular, it does not matter *how the set is defined or denoted*.
- ▶ Two sets, A and B, are equal:

$$A = B \Leftrightarrow \forall x (x \in A \leftrightarrow x \in B)$$

Set equality written mathematically

- ▶ If A and B are sets, then A and B are equal if and only if $\forall x(x \in A \leftrightarrow x \in B)$. We write $A=B$, if A and B are equal sets.
- ▶ The sets **$\{1,3,5\}$ and $\{3,5,1\}$** are equal, because they have the same elements.
- ▶ **$\{1,3,3,5,5,5\}$** is the same as the set **$\{1,3,5\}$** because they have the same elements.

Cardinality (i.e., size) of a Finite set

- ▶ The cardinality of a set S is the number of distinct/different elements in S .
- ▶ The cardinality of S is denoted by $|S|$
- ▶ If there are n distinct elements in the set S where n is a nonnegative integer, we say that S is a **finite set**.
- ▶ $|S| = n$, where n is the number of distinct elements in the set
- ▶ Example: $S = \{a, a, b, a, b, c, c, c, c\}$, $|S| = 3$.

Cardinality (i.e., size) of an Infinite set

- ▶ A set is said to be infinite if it is not finite. (i.e., we can't count the number of its elements)
- ▶ Conceptually, sets may be *infinite* (i.e., not *finite*, without end, unending).
- ▶ Symbols for some special **infinite sets**:
 $\mathbf{N} = \{0, 1, 2, \dots\}$ The **N**atural numbers.
 $\mathbf{Z} = \{\dots, -2, -1, 0, 1, 2, \dots\}$ The **I**ntegers.
 $\mathbf{Z}^+ = \{1, 2, 3, 4, \dots\}$ The positive **I**ntegers.
 $\mathbf{R}$ = The "**R**eal" numbers, such as 374.1828...
- ▶ **The cardinality of an infinite set is infinity**, but some infinities are bigger than others.

Example

$$S = \{a, b, c, d\}$$

$$A = \{1, 2, 3, 7, 9\}$$

$$\emptyset = \{ \}$$

$$S = \{a, b, c, d\}$$

$$|S| = 4$$

$$A = \{1, 2, 3, 7, 9\}$$

$$|A| = 5$$

$$\emptyset = \{ \}$$

$$|\emptyset| = 0$$

Basic Set Relations: Member of

- ▶ $x \in S$ (“ x is in S ”) is the proposition that object x is an **element** or **member of the** set S [*belong Rule*].

- ▶ e.g. $3 \in \mathbb{N}$

- ▶ $x \notin S \equiv \neg(x \in S)$ “ x is not in S ” [**not belong Rule**]

- ▶ e.g. $3.5 \notin \mathbb{Z}$

Subset and Superset Relations

- ▶ The set **S** is said to be a subset of **T** if and only if every element of S is also an element of T.
- ▶ We use the notation **$S \subseteq T$** to indicate that S is a subset of the set T.
- ▶ **$S \subseteq T = T \supseteq S \Leftrightarrow \forall x (x \in S \rightarrow x \in T)$** . All elements of S are found in T. But T can have extra elements and might be equal to S too.

Subset and Superset Relations

- ▶ $\emptyset \subseteq S$ (The empty set is a subset of any set)
- ▶ $S \subseteq S$ (Any set is technically a subset of itself)
- ▶ $S \supseteq T$ (“S is a **superset** of T”) means $T \subseteq S$.
- ▶ Note $S = T \Leftrightarrow S \subseteq T \wedge T \subseteq S \Leftrightarrow S \subseteq T \wedge S \supseteq T$
- ▶ $S \not\subseteq T$ means $\neg(S \subseteq T)$, i.e. $\exists x(x \in S \wedge x \notin T)$

Subset and Superset Relations

$$S \subseteq T \Leftrightarrow \forall x (x \in S \rightarrow x \in T)$$

$$T = \{1, 2, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10\}$$

$$S = \{2, 4, 7\}$$

$$S \subseteq T$$

$$T \subseteq S \quad \text{Wrong !!}$$

$$T \supseteq S$$

$$T = \{1, 2, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10\}$$

$$S = \{1, 2, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10\}$$

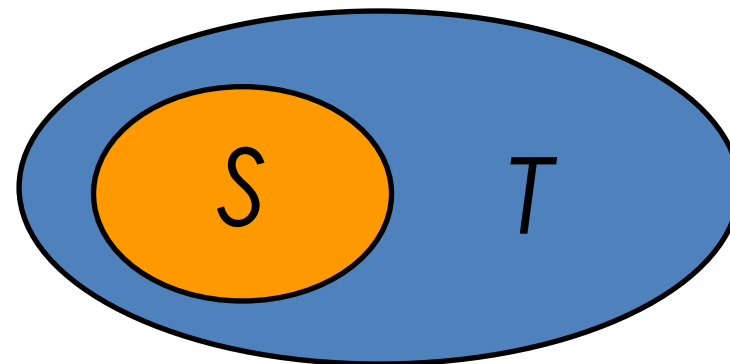
$$S \subseteq T$$

$$T \subseteq S$$

$$S = T \Leftrightarrow S \subseteq T \wedge T \subseteq S$$

Proper (Strict) Subsets & Supersets

- ▶ If set S is a subset of the set T but that $S \neq T$, we write $S \subset T$ and say that S is a **proper** (strict) **subset** of T .
- ▶ $S \subset T \Leftrightarrow \forall x(x \in S \rightarrow x \in T) \wedge \exists x(x \in T \wedge x \notin S)$
- ▶ $S \subset T$ (" S is a **proper subset** of T ") means that $S \subseteq T$ but $T \not\subseteq S$. Similar for $S \supset T$.
- ▶ Example:
 - ▶ $\{1,2\} \subset \{1,2,3\}$



Venn Diagram equivalent of $S \subset T$

Proper (Strict) Subsets & Supersets

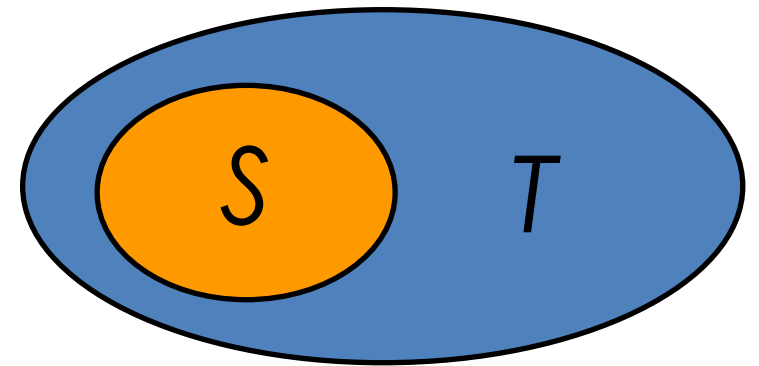
$S \subset T \Leftrightarrow \forall x(x \in S \rightarrow x \in T) \wedge \exists x(x \in T \wedge x \notin S)$, All elements of S are in T But $S \neq T$ so T must have at least one extra element.

$T = \{1, 2, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10\}$

$S = \{2, 4, 7\}$

$S \subset T$

Equivalent to
 $S \subseteq T$ and $T \not\subseteq S$



Venn Diagram equivalent of $S \subset T$

Proper (Strict) Subsets & Supersets

Which one of the following statements is wrong?

1. $\{1,2\} \subseteq \{1,2,3\}$

2. $\{1,2\} \subseteq \{1,2\}$

3. $\{1,2\} \subset \{1,2,3\}$

4. $\{1,2\} \subset \{1,2\}$

Proper (Strict) Subsets & Supersets

1. $1, 2 \subseteq 1, 2, 3$ ✓

- True: $\{1,2\}$ is a subset of $\{1,2,3\}$

2. $1, 2 \subseteq 1, 2$ ✓

- True: Every set is a subset of itself

3. $1, 2 \subset 1, 2, 3$ ✓

- True: $\{1,2\}$ is a **proper subset** of $\{1,2,3\}$ (not equal)

4. $1, 2 \subset 1, 2$ ✗

- **False:** A set is **not** a proper subset of itself — this is the incorrect one.

The *Power Set* Operation

- ▶ The *power set* of a set S is the set of all subsets of S and it is denoted by $P(S)$

$$P(S) = \{x \mid x \subseteq S\}$$

- ▶ Sometimes $P(S)$ is written 2^S
- ▶ The number of elements in the power set of a finite set is denoted by $|P(S)| = 2^{|S|}$
- ▶ It turns out $\forall S: |P(S)| > |S|$, e.g. $|P(\mathbb{N})| > |\mathbb{N}|$
- ▶ *There are different sizes of infinite sets!*

The *Power Set* Operation

$$S = \{1, 2, 3\}$$

$$|P(S)| = 2^3 = 8 \text{ elements}$$

$$P(S) = 2^S$$

$$= \{\emptyset, \{1\}, \{2\}, \{3\}, \{1, 2\}, \{1, 3\}, \{2, 3\}, \{1, 2, 3\}\}$$

Sets Are Objects, Too!

- ▶ Can make a SET OF SETS!!!
- ▶ The objects that are elements of a set may *themselves* be sets.
- ▶ E.g. let $S = \{x \mid x \subseteq \{1, 2, 3\}\}$
then $S = \{\emptyset, \{1\}, \{2\}, \{3\}, \{1, 2\}, \{1, 3\}, \{2, 3\}, \{1, 2, 3\}\}$

IMPORTANT

Note that $1 \neq \{1\} \neq \{\{1\}\}$!!!!

1	number 1
{1}	set containing element "1"
{{1}}	SET OF SETS

Sets Are Objects, Too!

$$S = \{a, b, c, d, \{2\}\}$$

$$|S| =$$

$$A = \{1, 2, 3, \{2, 3\}, 9\}$$

$$|A| =$$

$$S = \{a, b, c, d, \{2\}\}$$

$$|S| = 5$$

$$A = \{1, 2, 3, \{2, 3\}, 9\}$$

$$|A| = 5$$

Ordered n -tuples

- ▶ N -tuples are like sets, except that duplicates matter, and the order makes a difference.
- ▶ For $n \in \mathbf{N}$, an *ordered n -tuple* is written $(a_1, a_2, \dots, a_n)$. The ordered n tuple $(a_1, a_2, \dots, a_n)$ is the ordered collection that has a_1 as its first element, a_2 as its second element, $\dots$, and a_n as its n th element.
- ▶ In particular, ordered 2-tuples are called ordered pairs (e.g., the ordered pairs (a, b))
- ▶ **Note** $(1, 2) \neq (2, 1) \neq (2, 1, 1)$.

Cartesian Products of Sets

- ▶ Let A and B be sets. The Cartesian product of A and B , denoted by $A \times B$, is the set of all ordered pairs (a, b) where $a \in A$ and $b \in B$.
- ▶ For sets A, B , their Cartesian product, $A \times B := \{(a, b) \mid a \in A \wedge b \in B\}$
- ▶ For sets B, A , their Cartesian product, $B \times A := \{(b, a) \mid b \in B \wedge a \in A\}$
- ▶ E.g., $A = \{a, b\}$, and $B = \{1, 2\}$

$A \times B = \{(a, 1), (a, 2), (b, 1), (b, 2)\}$ (a set of ordered pairs)

$B \times A = \{(1, a), (2, a), (1, b), (2, b)\}$ (a set of ordered pairs)

Cartesian Products of Sets

Remarks

- ▶ For finite sets A, B , $|A \times B| = |A| |B|$.
- ▶ The Cartesian product is **not** commutative:

$$\forall A, B: A \times B \neq B \times A$$

- ▶ Extends to multiple sets

$$A_1 \times A_2 \times \dots \times A_n = \{(a_1, a_2, \dots, a_n) \mid a_i \in A_i \text{ for } i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}\}$$

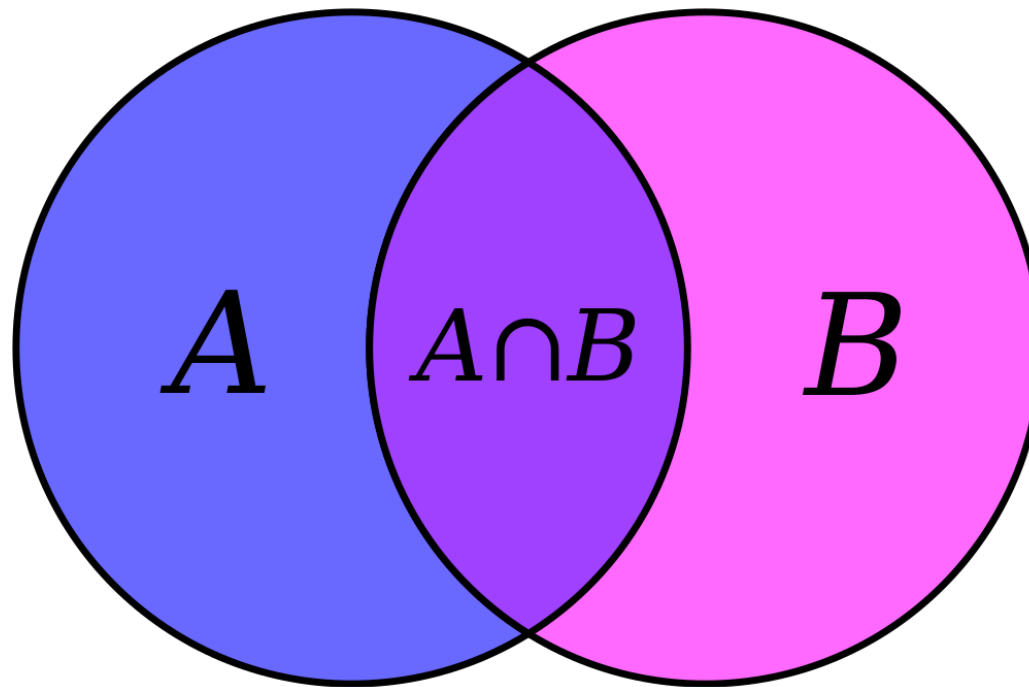
Cartesian Products of Sets

Let $A = \{1, 2\}$, and $B = \{a, b, c\}$

$$|A \times B| = |A| * |B| = 2 * 3 = 6$$

$$A \times B = \{(1, a), (1, b), (1, c), (2, a), (2, b), (2, c)\}.$$

Find $B \times A$?



2.2 Set Operations

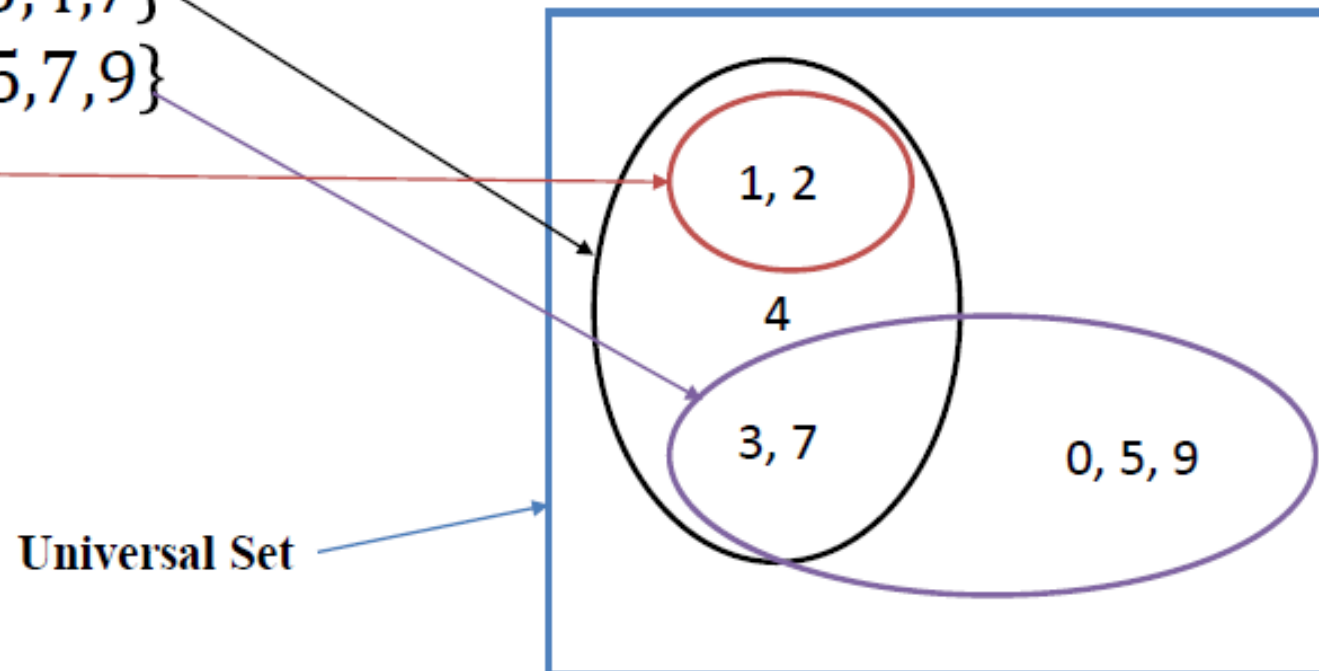
Venn Diagrams

- ▶ Geometric representation of sets

$$A = \{1, 2, 3, 4, 7\}$$

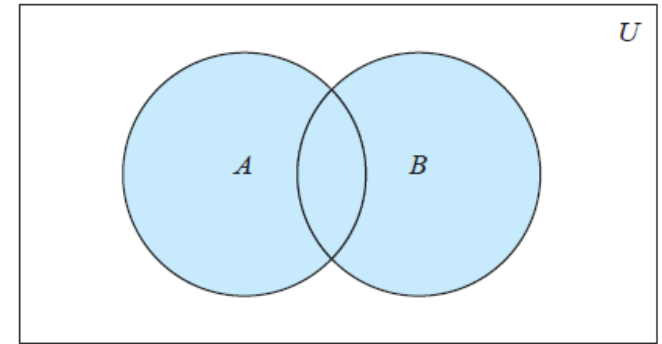
$$B = \{0, 3, 5, 7, 9\}$$

$$C = \{1, 2\}$$



The Union Operator

- ▶ For sets A , B , their *union* ($A \cup B$) is the set containing all elements that are either in A , **or** (“ $\vee$ ”) in B (or, of course, in both)
- ▶ Formally, $\forall A, B: A \cup B = \{x \mid x \in A \vee x \in B\}$

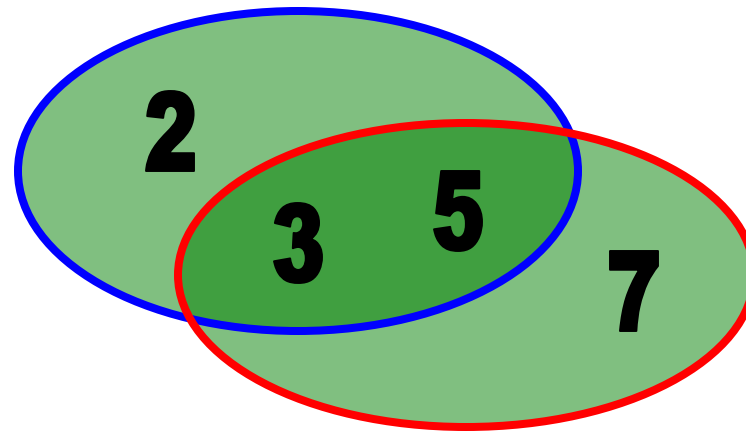


- ▶ Note that $A \cup B$ contains all the elements of A and also all the elements of B
- ▶ $A \cup B$ is a **superset** of both A and B (in fact, it is the smallest such superset):

$$\forall A, B: (A \subseteq A \cup B) \wedge (B \subseteq A \cup B)$$

Union Examples

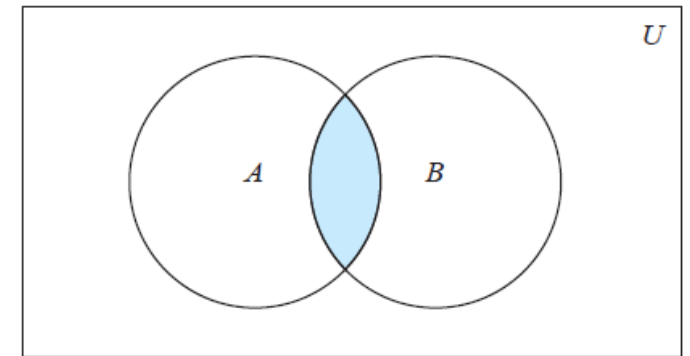
- ▶ $\{a,b,c\} \cup \{2,3\} = \{a,b,c,2,3\}$
- ▶ $\{2,3,5\} \cup \{3,5,7\} = \{2,3,5,3,5,7\} = \{2,3,5,7\}$



The Intersection Operator

- ▶ For sets A , B , their *intersection* ($A \cap B$) is the set containing all elements that are in both A **and** (“ $\wedge$ ”) in B .

- ▶ Formally, $\forall A, B: A \cap B \equiv \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \in B\}$



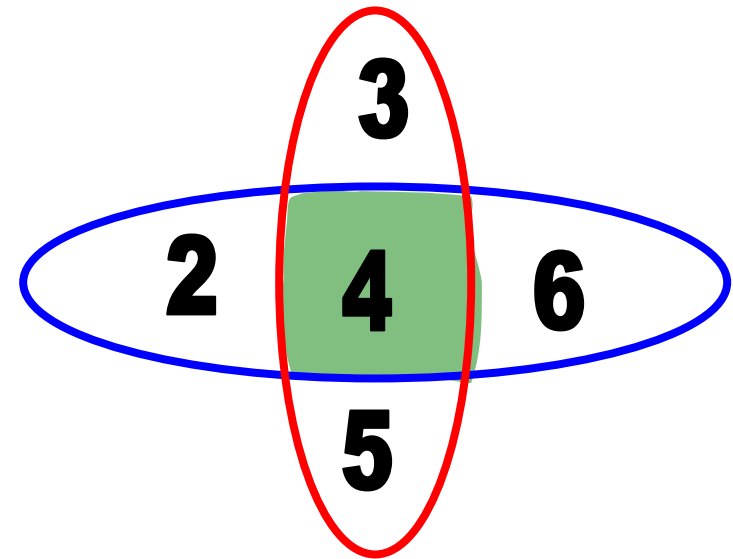
- ▶ **Remark:** $A \cap B$ is a subset of A **and** it is a subset of B :

$$\forall A, B: (A \cap B \subseteq A) \wedge (A \cap B \subseteq B)$$

Intersection Examples

► $\{a,b,c\} \cap \{2,3\} = \emptyset$

► $\{2,4,6\} \cap \{3,4,5\} = \{4\}$



Disjointedness

- ▶ Two sets A, B are called *disjoint (i.e., unjoined)* if and only if their intersection is empty.
- ▶ $(A \cap B = \emptyset)$
- ▶ Example: the set of even integers is disjoint with the set of odd integers.

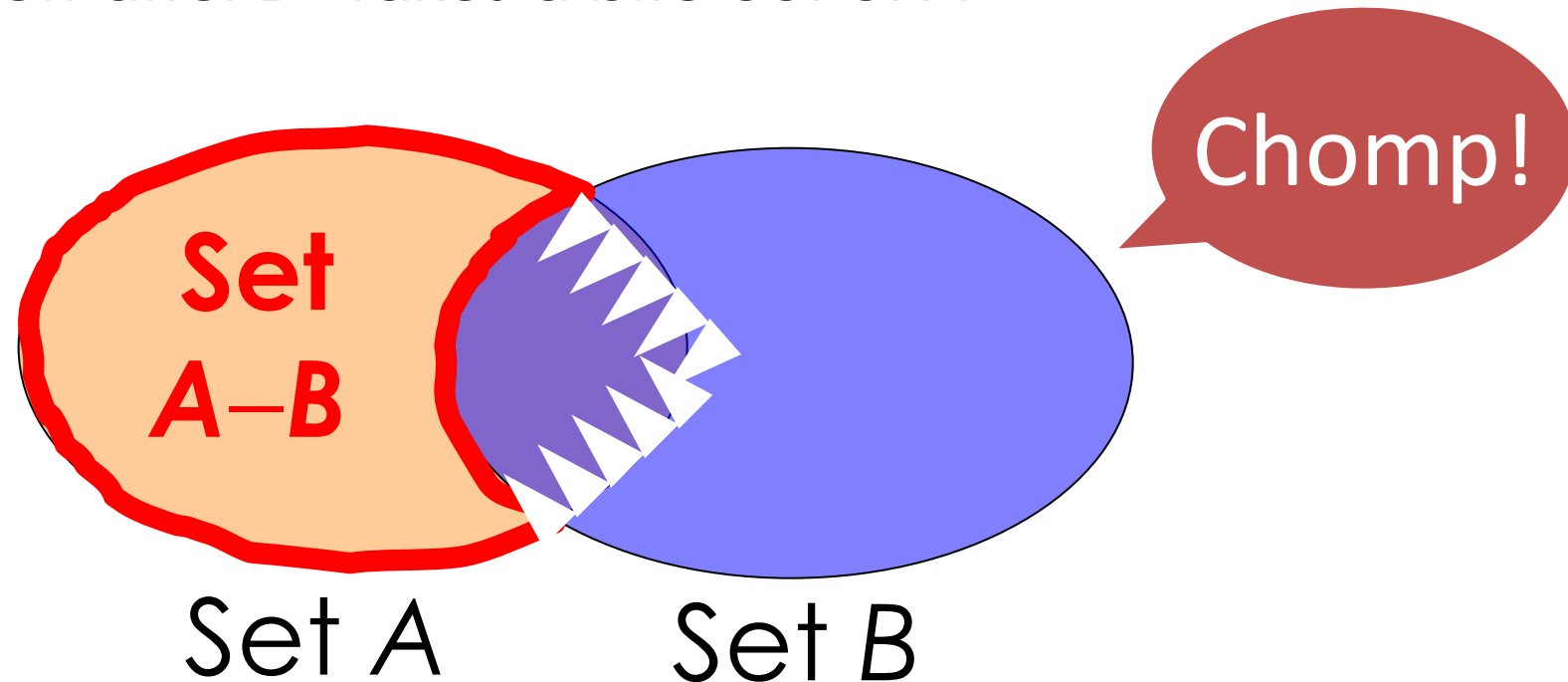


Set Difference

- ▶ For sets A , B , the **difference** of A and B , written **$A-B$** , is the set of all elements that are in A but not in B .
- ▶ $A - B \equiv \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \notin B\}$
- ▶ Also called:
The complement of B with respect to A .

Set Difference - Venn Diagram

- ▶ $A - B$ is what's left after B "takes a bite out of A "



Set Difference Examples

- ▶ $\{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\} - \{2, 3, 5, 7, 9, 11\} = \{1, 4, 6\}$
- ▶ $\mathbf{Z} - \mathbf{N} = \{\dots, -1, 0, 1, 2, \dots\} - \{0, 1, \dots\}$
 - $= \{x \mid x \text{ is an integer but not a nat. \#}\}$
 - $= \{x \mid x \text{ is a negative integer}\}$
 - $= \{\dots, -3, -2, -1\}$

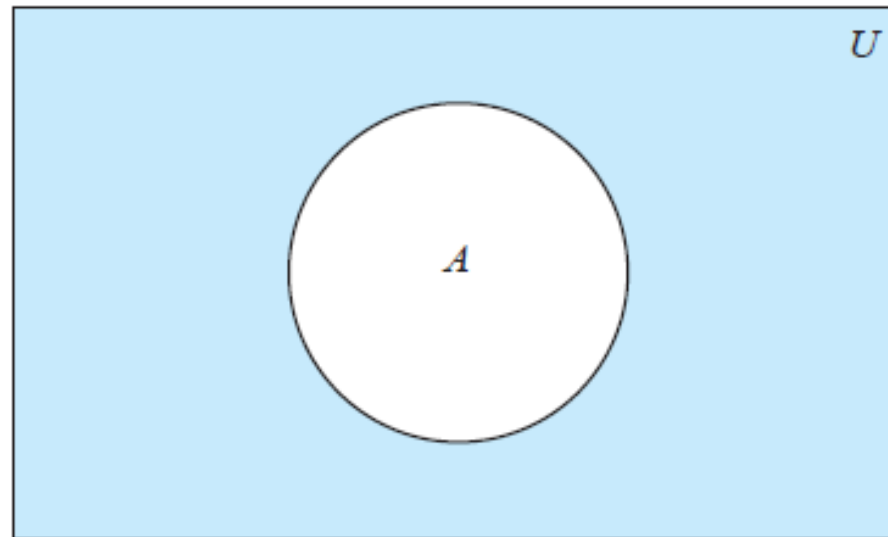
Set Complements

- ▶ The *universe of discourse (universal set)* can itself be considered a set, call it U .
- ▶ The complement of A , written $\bar{A}$, is the complement of A w.r.t. U , i.e., it is difference of U and A , $U - A$.
- ▶ If $U = \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5\}$ and $A = \{1, 3\}$, then $\bar{A} = \{2, 4, 5\}$
- ▶ If $U = \mathbf{N}$, and $A = \{3, 5\}$, then $\bar{A} = \{0, 1, 2, 4, 6, 7, \dots\}$

More on Set Complements

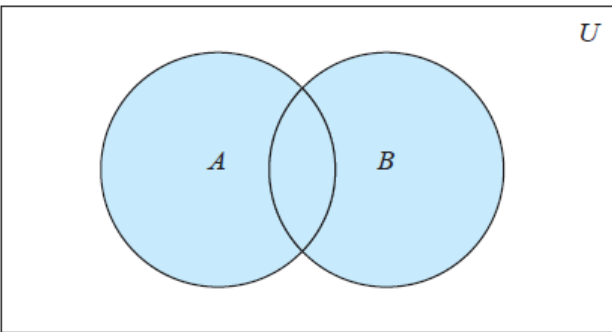
- ▶ An equivalent definition, when U is clear:

$$\overline{A} = \{x \mid x \notin A\}$$

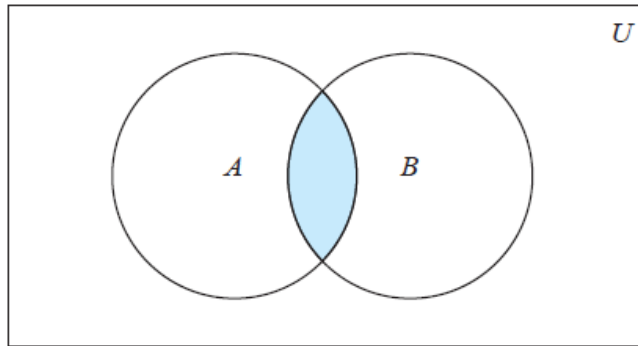


$\overline{A}$ is shaded.

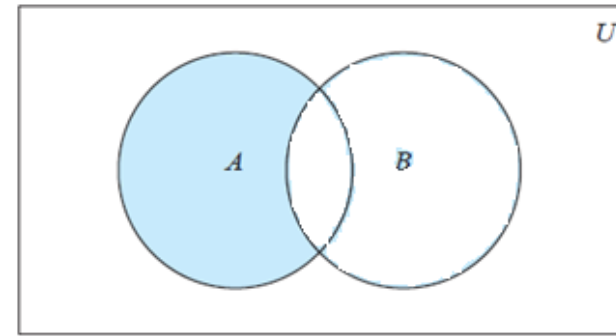
Venn Diagrams



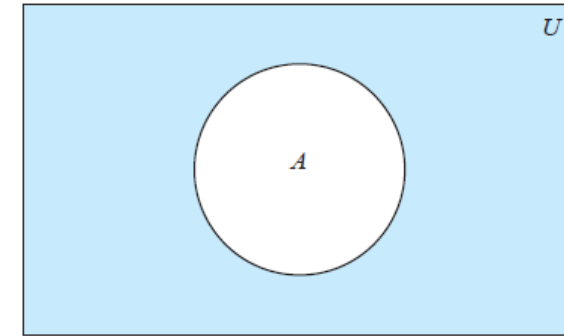
$$A \cup B = \{x \mid x \in A \vee x \in B\}$$



$$A \cap B \equiv \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \in B\}$$



$$A - B \equiv \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \notin B\}$$



$$\overline{A} = \{x \mid x \notin A\}$$

DeMorgan's Law for Sets

- ▶ Exactly analogous to (and derivable from) DeMorgan's Law for propositions.

$$\overline{A \cup B} = \bar{A} \cap \bar{B}$$

$$\overline{A \cap B} = \bar{A} \cup \bar{B}$$

Set Identities

Set identities are rules that describe how sets behave under operations like union ($\cup$), intersection ($\cap$), and complement. They're like algebra rules, but for sets.

<i>Identity</i>	<i>Name</i>
$A \cap U = A$ $A \cup \emptyset = A$	Identity laws
$A \cup U = U$ $A \cap \emptyset = \emptyset$	Domination laws
$A \cup A = A$ $A \cap A = A$	Idempotent laws
$\overline{\overline{A}} = A$	Complementation law
$A \cup B = B \cup A$ $A \cap B = B \cap A$	Commutative laws

Set Identities

$A \cup (B \cup C) = (A \cup B) \cup C$ $A \cap (B \cap C) = (A \cap B) \cap C$	Associative laws
$A \cup (B \cap C) = (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$ $A \cap (B \cup C) = (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$	Distributive laws
$\overline{A \cap B} = \overline{A} \cup \overline{B}$ $\overline{A \cup B} = \overline{A} \cap \overline{B}$	De Morgan's laws
$A \cup (A \cap B) = A$ $A \cap (A \cup B) = A$	Absorption laws
$A \cup \overline{A} = U$ $A \cap \overline{A} = \emptyset$	Complement laws

Proving Set Identities

There are four techniques/methods to prove statements about sets, of the form $E_1 = E_2$ (where E s are set expressions):

1. Use Mutual subsets. Prove $E_1 \subseteq E_2$ and $E_2 \subseteq E_1$ separately.
2. Use the logical equivalences [Set Identities].
3. Use the membership table.
4. Use the Ven diagram

Method 1: Mutual subsets

- ▶ Recall that to prove such identity, we must show that:
 1. The left-hand side is a subset of the right-hand side
 2. The right-hand side is a subset of the left-hand side
 3. Then conclude that the two sides are thus equal

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 1

Prove that $A \cup (A \cap B) = A$

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 1

- ▶ **Solution:** To prove $A \cup (A \cap B) = A$, we need to show that each side of the equation is a subset of the other.
- ▶ **Show that $A \cup (A \cap B)$ is a subset of A :**
 - ▶ Assume $x \in A \cup (A \cap B)$ and show that $x \in A$
 - ▶ Since $x \in A \cup (A \cap B)$.
 - ▶ Then $x \in A$ or x is in $(A \cap B)$.
 - ▶ If $x \in A$, we're done.
 - ▶ If $x \in (A \cap B)$, then $x \in A$ and $x \in B$, so $x \in A$.
 - ▶ Thus, in both cases, $x \in A$.

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 1

- ▶ **Show that A is a subset of $A \cup (A \cap B)$:**
 - ▶ Assume $x \in A$ and show that $x \in A \cup (A \cap B)$
 - ▶ Since $x \in A$.
 - ▶ Then, It's also true that $x \in A \cup (A \cap B)$ because we're taking the union with A .
 - ▶ Therefore, $x \in A \cup (A \cap B)$.
- ▶ Since both directions are proven, **$A \cup (A \cap B)$ is a subset of A and A is a subset of $A \cup (A \cap B)$** , we have $A \cup (A \cap B) = A$.

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 2

Prove that $A \cap (B \cup C) = (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 2

- ▶ **Show that $A \cap (B \cup C) \subseteq (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$,**
 - ▶ Assume $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$ and show that $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.
 - ▶ Since $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$, then $x \in A$, and either $x \in B$ or $x \in C$.
 - ▶ Case 1: $x \in B$. Then $x \in A \cap B$, so $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.
 - ▶ Case 2: $x \in C$. Then $x \in A \cap C$, so $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.
 - ▶ Therefore, $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.
 - ▶ Therefore, $A \cap (B \cup C) \subseteq (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.

Method 1- Mutual subsets: Example 2

- ▶ **Show that $(A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C) \subseteq A \cap (B \cup C)$**
- ▶ Assume $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$ and show that $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$
- ▶ Since $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$, then $x \in (A \cap B)$ or $x \in (A \cap C)$
 - ▶ Case 1: $(A \cap B)$. Then $x \in A$ and $x \in B$, so $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$
 - ▶ Case 2: $(A \cap C)$. Then $x \in A$ and $x \in C$, so $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$
- ▶ Therefore, $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$
- ▶ Therefore, $(A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C) \subseteq A \cap (B \cup C)$
- ▶ **Since $A \cap (B \cup C) \subseteq (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$ and $(A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C) \subseteq A \cap (B \cup C)$.
Then $A \cap (B \cup C) = (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$**

Method 2: Logical Equivalence

Example 1

Let A , B , and C be sets. Show that

$$\overline{A \cup (B \cap C)} = (\overline{C} \cup \overline{B}) \cap \overline{A}.$$

$$\begin{aligned}\overline{A \cup (B \cap C)} &= \overline{A} \cap \overline{(B \cap C)} && \text{by the first De Morgan law} \\ &= \overline{A} \cap (\overline{B} \cup \overline{C}) && \text{by the second De Morgan law} \\ &= (\overline{B} \cup \overline{C}) \cap \overline{A} && \text{by the commutative law for intersections} \\ &= (\overline{C} \cup \overline{B}) \cap \overline{A} && \text{by the commutative law for unions.}\end{aligned}$$

Method 3: Membership Tables

- ▶ Membership tables (also called truth tables for sets) are a way to show how set operations work, using 0s and 1s to indicate membership.
- ▶ Symbols:
 - **1** = element **is in** the set
 - **0** = element **is not in** the set
- ▶ Columns for different set expressions
- ▶ Rows for all combinations of memberships in constituent sets
- ▶ Prove equivalence with identical columns.

Method 3 - Membership Table

A	B	$A \cap B$	$A \cup B$	$\bar{A}$	$\bar{B}$	A-B	B-A
0	0	0	0	1	1	0	0
0	1	0	1	1	0	0	1
1	0	0	1	0	1	1	0
1	1	1	1	0	0	0	0

Method 3 - Membership Table

Example 1

Prove that $(A \cup B) - B = A - B$.

A	B			
0	0			
0	1			
1	0			
1	1			

Method 3 - Membership Table

Example 1

Prove that $(A \cup B) - B = A - B$.

A	B	$A \cup B$	$(A \cup B) - B$	$A - B$
0	0	0	0	0
0	1	1	0	0
1	0	1	1	1
1	1	1	0	0

Method 3 - Membership Table

Example 2

Prove that $\overline{A \cap B \cap C} = \bar{A} \cup \bar{B} \cup \bar{C}$

A	B	C	$A \cap B \cap C$	$\overline{A \cap B \cap C}$	$\bar{A}$	$\bar{B}$	$\bar{C}$	$\bar{A} \cup \bar{B} \cup \bar{C}$
0	0	0						
0	0	1						
0	1	0						
0	1	1						
1	0	0						
1	0	1						
1	1	0						
1	1	1						

Method 3 - Membership Table

Example 2

A	B	C	$A \cap B \cap C$	$\overline{A \cap B \cap C}$	$\bar{A}$	$\bar{B}$	$\bar{C}$	$\bar{A} \cup \bar{B} \cup \bar{C}$
0	0	0	0	1	1	1	1	1
0	0	1	0	1	1	1	0	1
0	1	0	0	1	1	0	1	1
0	1	1	0	1	1	0	0	1
1	0	0	0	1	0	1	1	1
1	0	1	0	1	0	1	0	1
1	1	0	0	1	0	0	1	1
1	1	1	1	0	0	0	0	0

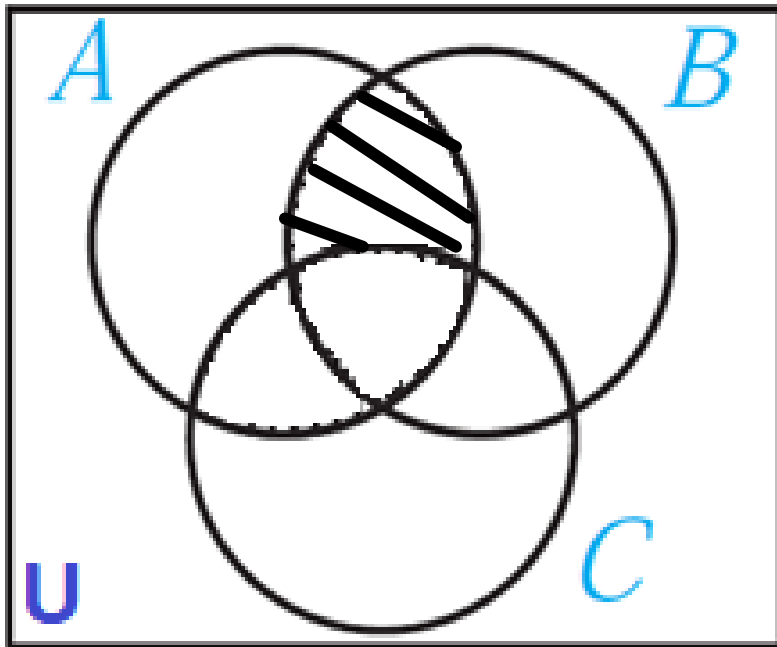
- 1 under a set indicates that “an element is in the set”
- If the columns are equivalent, we can conclude that indeed the two sets are equal



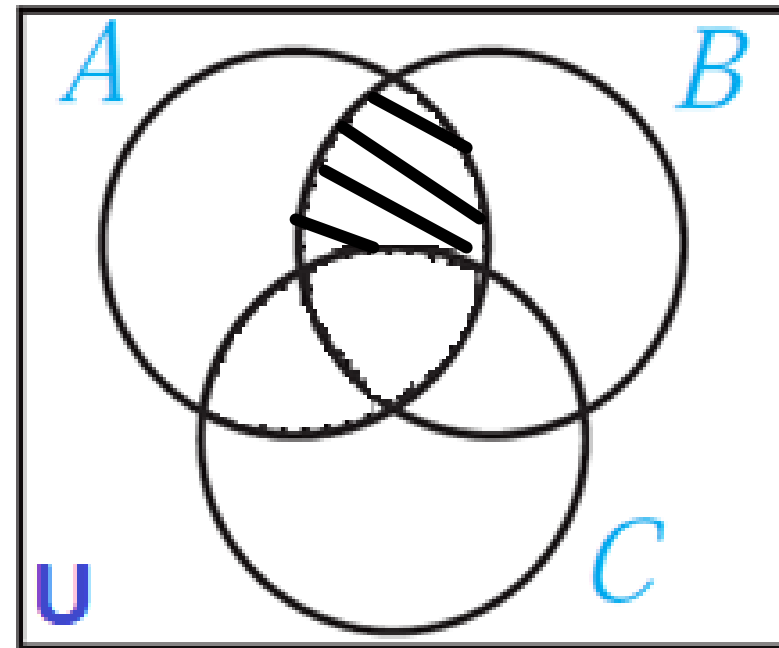
Method 4 - Venn Diagrams

Prove that $A \cap (B - C) = (A \cap B) - C$

$A \cap (B - C)$



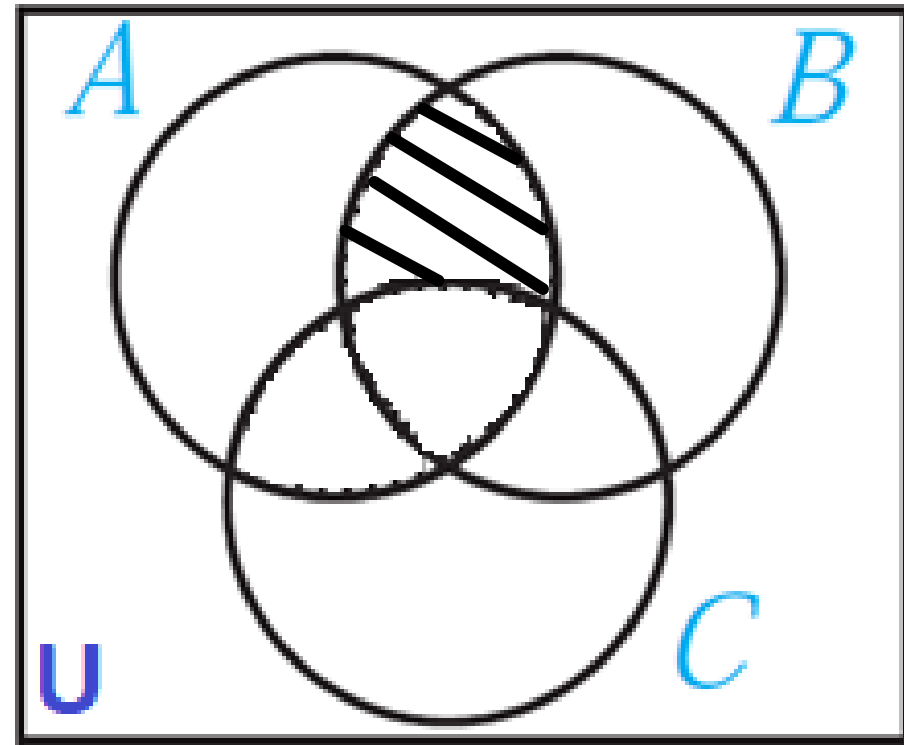
$(A \cap B) - C$



Venn Diagrams

Draw the Venn diagram for the following combination of the sets A, B, and C.

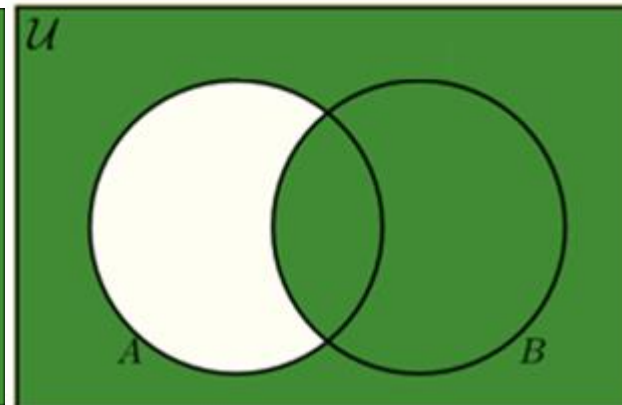
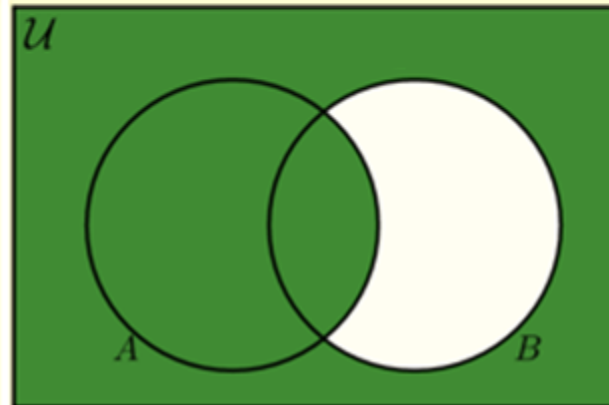
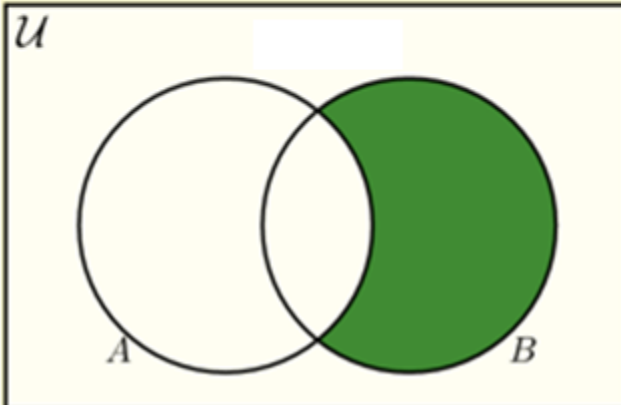
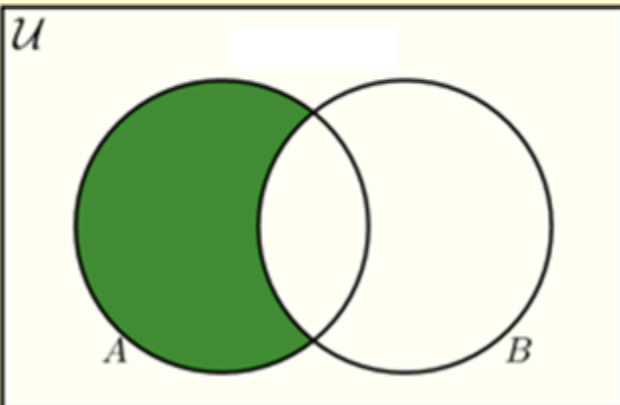
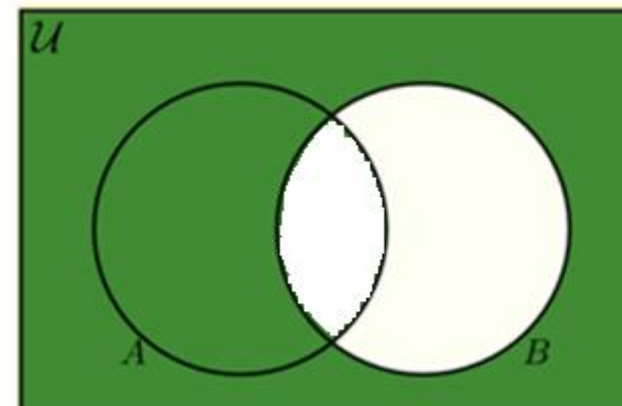
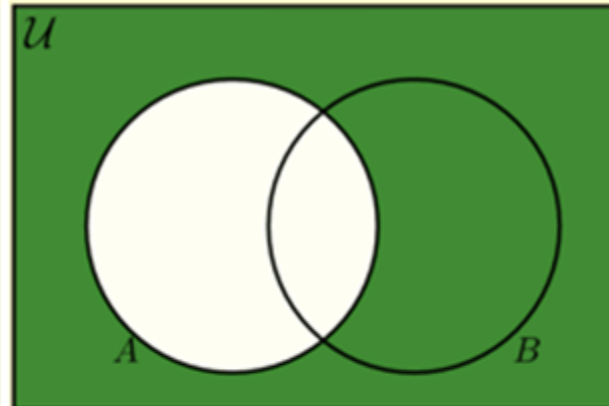
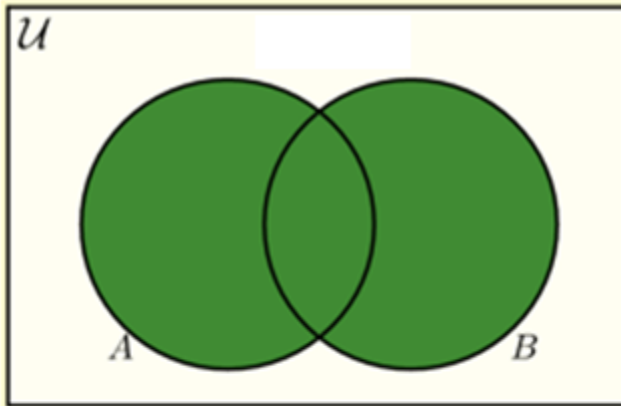
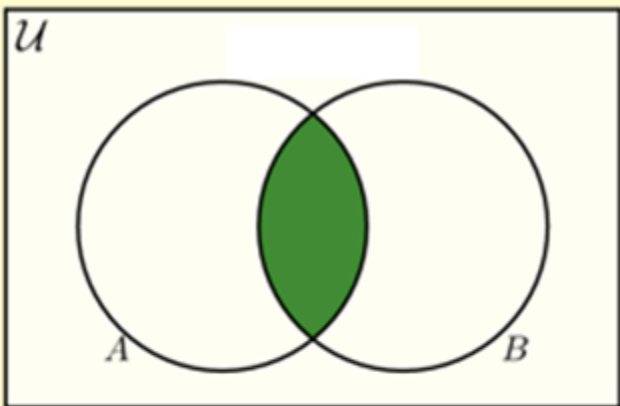
- $A \cap (B - C)$



Venn Diagrams

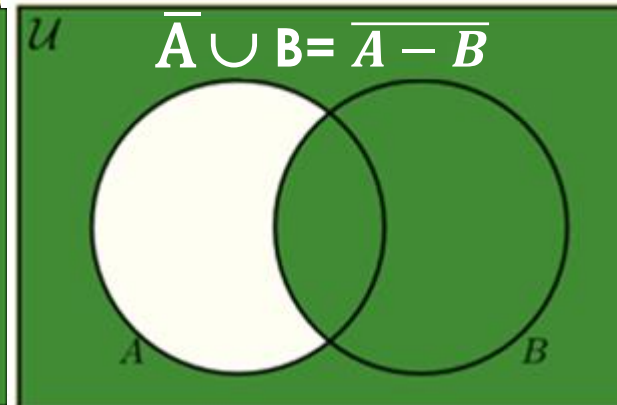
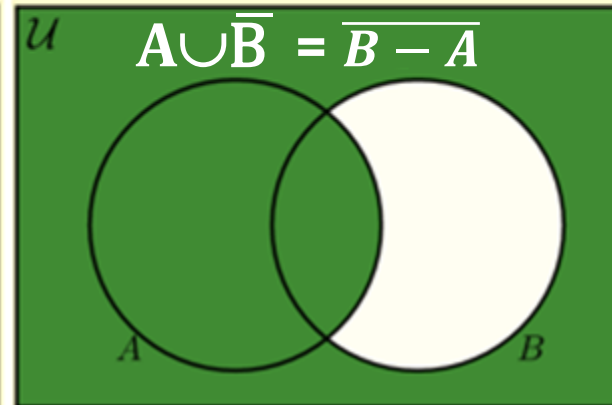
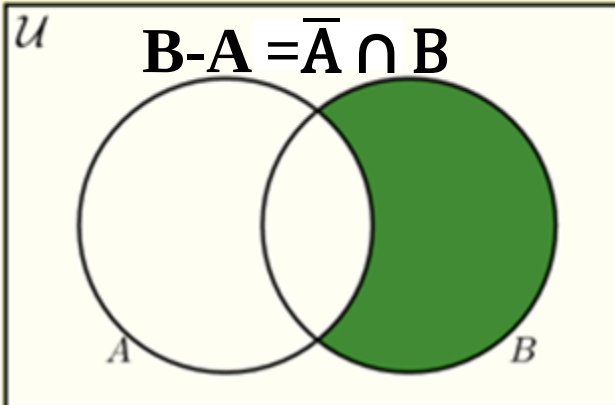
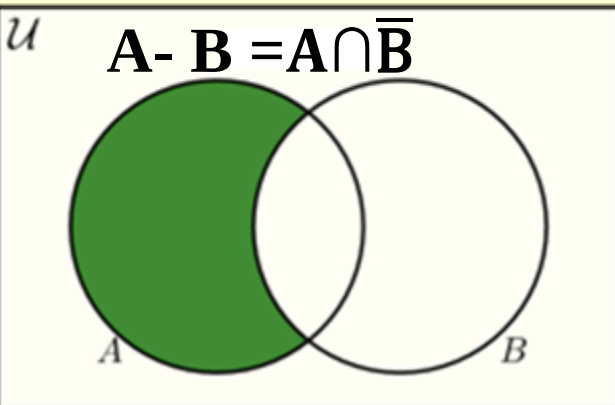
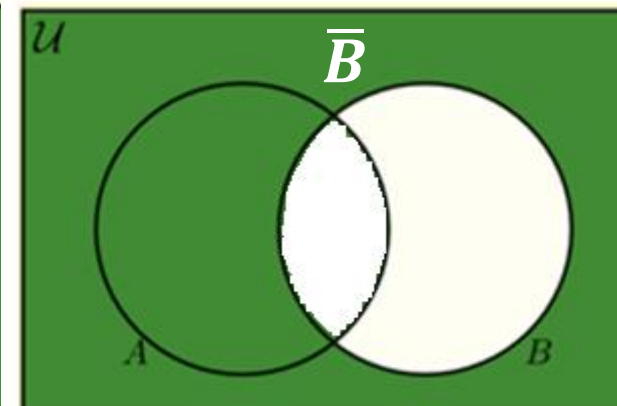
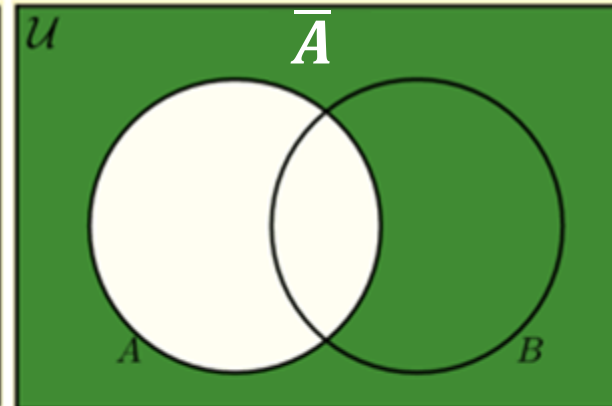
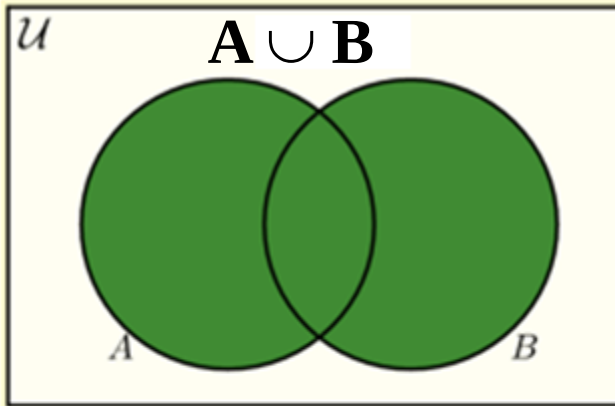
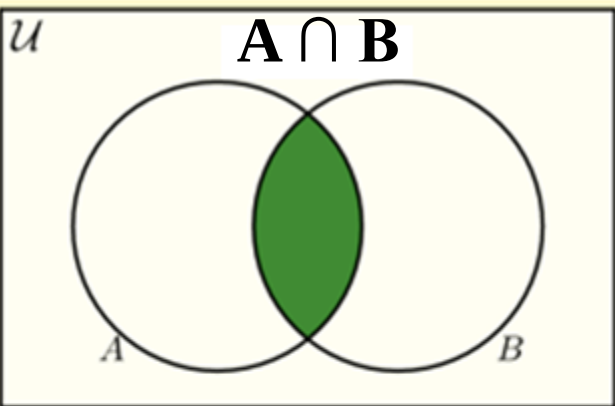
Find the relation of the sets A and B for each of the following diagrams

65



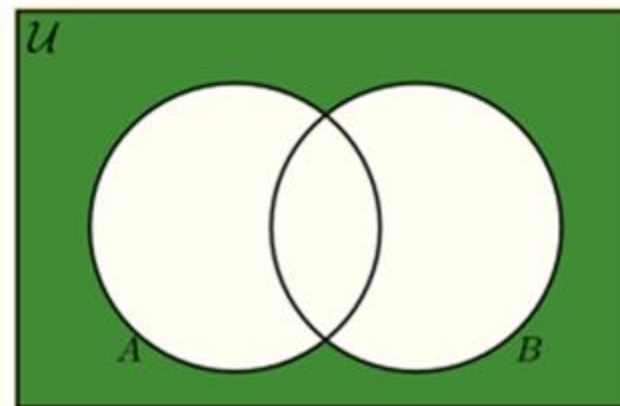
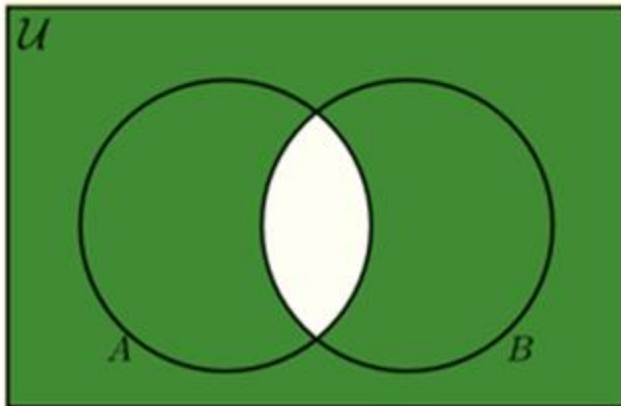
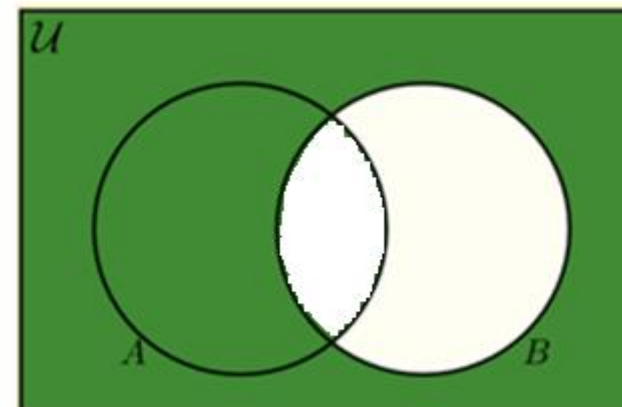
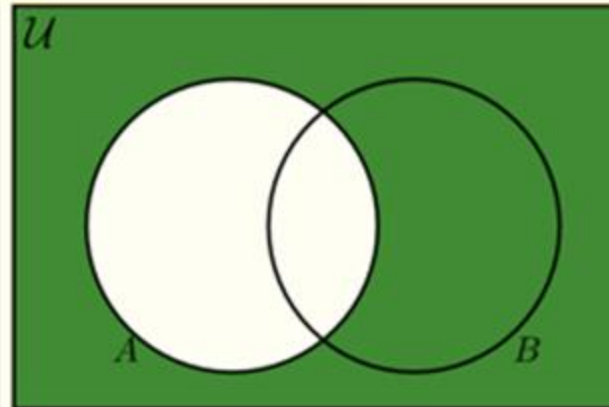
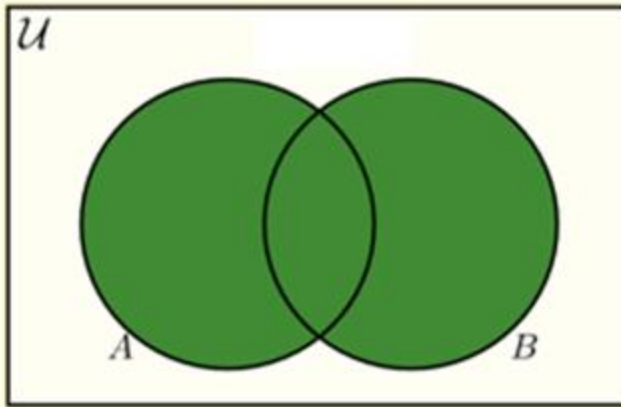
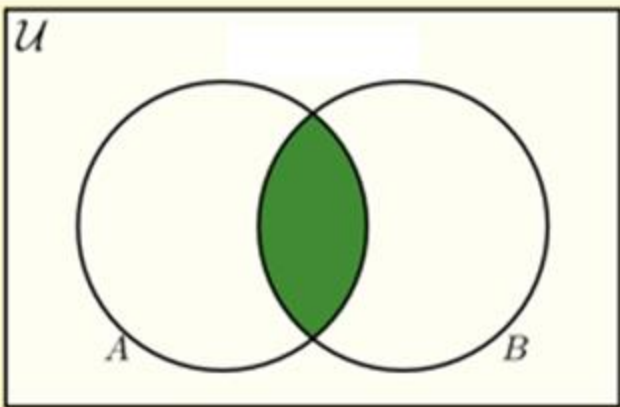
Venn Diagrams

Find the relation of the sets A and B for each of the following diagrams



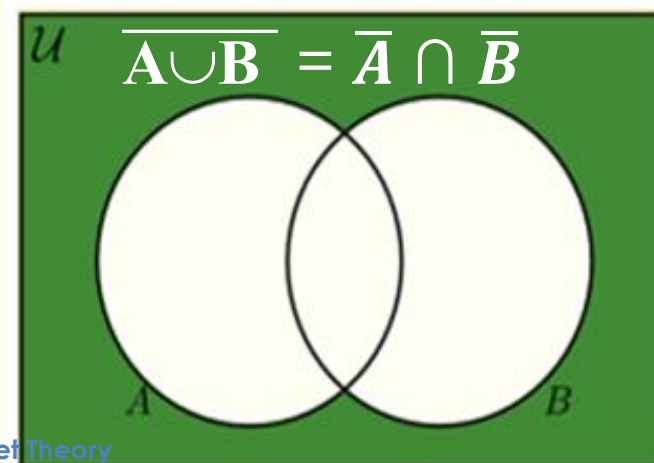
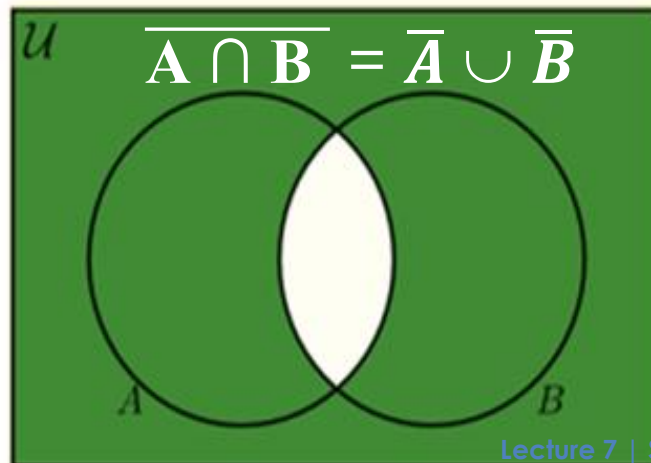
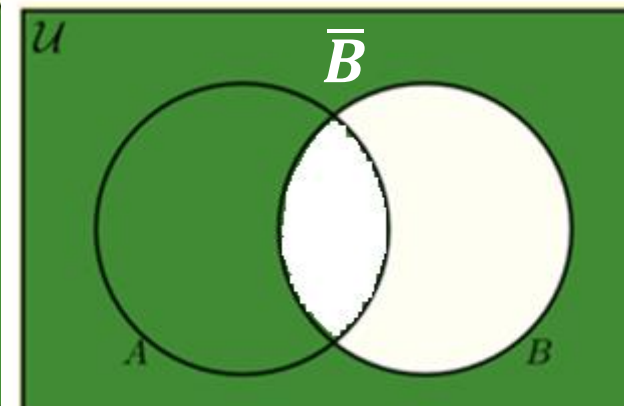
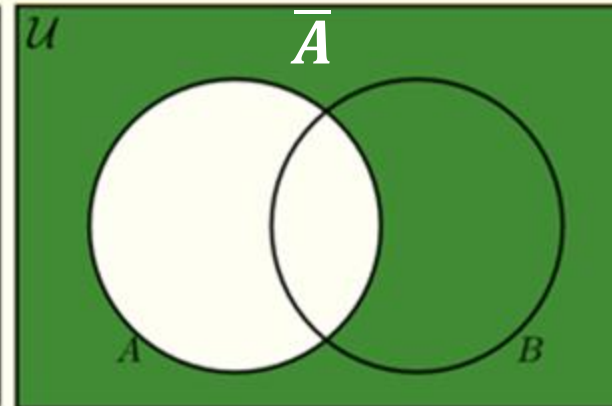
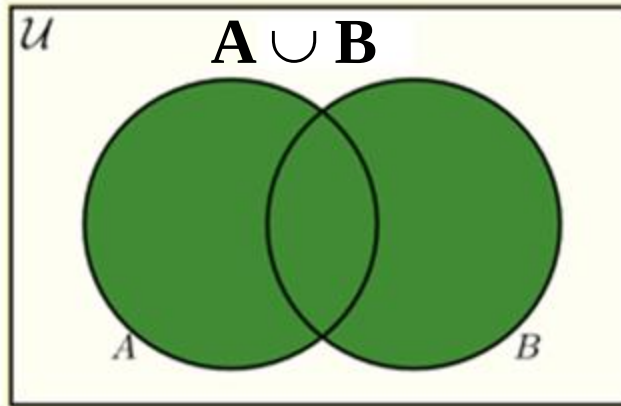
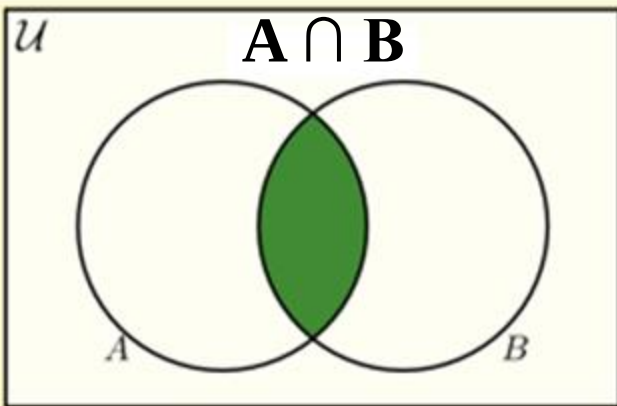
Venn Diagrams

Find the relation of the sets A and B for each of the following diagrams



Venn Diagrams

Find the relation of the sets A and B for each of the following diagrams

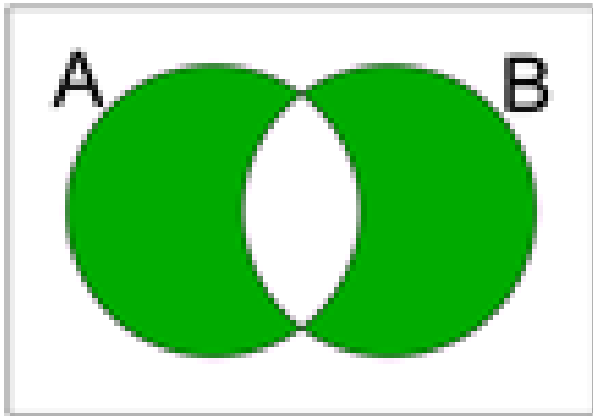


Review Questions

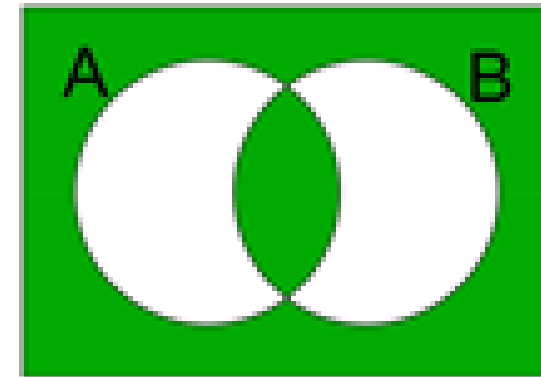


Problem 1

Find the relation of the sets A and B for each of the following diagrams



$$(A \cap B') \cup (A' \cap B)$$



$$(A' \cap B') \cup (A \cap B)$$

Problem 2

Prove $(A \cup B) - C = (A - C) \cup (B - C)$ using membership tables.

A	B	C	$A \cup B$	$(A \cup B) - C$	$A - C$	$B - C$	$(A - C) \cup (B - C)$
0	0	0					
0	0	1					
0	1	0					
0	1	1					
1	0	0					
1	0	1					
1	1	0					
1	1	1					

Supplementary Material

- ▶ [Discrete Math - 2.1.1 Introduction to Sets](#)
- ▶ [Discrete Math - 2.1.2 Set Relationships](#)
- ▶ [Discrete Math - 2.2.1 Operations on Sets](#)
- ▶ [Discrete Math - 2.2.2 Set Identities](#)
- ▶ [Discrete Math - 2.2.3 Proving Set Identities](#)

Next Lecture

► Functions

See you next lecture

